

Solid State Optics

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Versuchsdurchführung: ?? . ?????

Protokollabgabe: ?? ??

1 Introduction

Fourier Transform Infrared (FTIR) spectroscopy is a powerful method for determining the electronic properties of metals and semiconductors. The FTIR technique is based on the interaction of infrared light with the material. Reflection and transmission are used to determine important electronic properties. Especially for semiconductors, the FTIR method is particularly useful because it helps to adjust parameters such as the doping concentration or the bandgap. For building applications like LEDs, transistors, or solar cells, precise knowledge of the bandgap and doping concentrations is required. In contrast to other common methods, such as spectroscopy with a monochromator, the FTIR method is much faster and more precise. Instead of varying the wavelength through multiple measurements, the FTIR method can measure the entire spectrum at once due to the use of a Michelson interferometer, which enables the interference of light. After Fourier transformation, the complete spectrum is obtained in a single step.

Firstly, the theoretical basics of light-matter interaction and some important formulas regarding reflection and transmission will be discussed. Following this theoretical introduction, the experimental setup will be described. The final part of this paper will focus on data evaluation, starting with the gas absorption of air. The second part of the data evaluation will involve determining the signal-to-noise ratio. The last part will address the determination of several previously mentioned electronic and optical properties, such as the refractive index, extinction coefficient, absorption coefficient, bandgap, and pulse matrix element for all

given semiconductor samples.

2 Theory

2.1 Wave equations

The propagation of electromagnetic waves in a medium are described with the wave equations:

$$\nabla^2 \vec{E} = \frac{\mu\epsilon}{c^2} \frac{\partial^2 \vec{E}}{\partial t^2} + \sigma\mu_0\mu \frac{\partial \vec{E}}{\partial t} \quad (1)$$

$$\nabla^2 \vec{H} = \frac{\mu\epsilon}{c^2} \frac{\partial^2 \vec{H}}{\partial t^2} + \sigma\mu_0\mu \frac{\partial \vec{H}}{\partial t} \quad (2)$$

with $\vec{E}$ as the electric field vector, $\vec{H}$ as the magnetic field vector, μ as the permeability, ϵ as the permittivity, σ as the conductivity, and c as the speed of light in vacuum.

Under the assumption of plane waves with the components $\vec{E} = E_0 e^{i(\vec{k} \cdot \vec{r} - \omega t)}$ and $\vec{H} = H_0 e^{i(\vec{k} \cdot \vec{r} - \omega t)}$ can be used as an ansatz to solve the wave equations 1 and 2. The dispersion relation of the plane waves is then described with:

$$k^2 = \omega^2 \cdot \left(\epsilon + i \frac{\sigma}{\omega\epsilon_0} \right) \quad (3)$$

with k as the wave vector, ω as the angular frequency, and ϵ_0 as the permittivity of vacuum.

2.2 Plane parallel layer

The investigated semiconductor samples can in first approximation be described as a plane parallel layer 1 with a thickness d and refractive index N_2 which acts

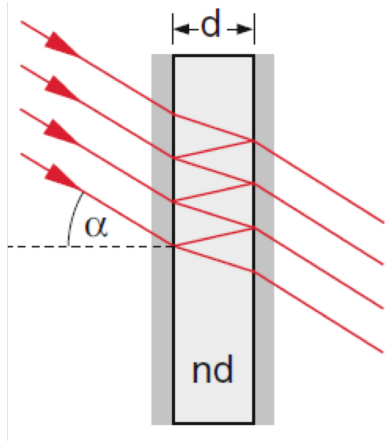


Abbildung 1: Simplified illustration of the measured samples as a plane parallel plate with thickness d and refractive index N_2 . The surrounding air is described with a refractive index $N_1 \approx 1$ [?]

like a fabry-perot interferometer. Light is simplified as beams. Every incoming beam is partially reflected and partially transmitted at the first interface. The total power reflectivity R_1 is described with:

$$R_1 = \left| \frac{1 - N_2}{1 + N_2} \right|^2 \quad (4)$$

without considering the phase shift of the reflected beam. Like shown in the illustration, the total power reflectivity of the second interface R_2 consists of the incoming beams and the beams reflected at the first interface within the material. Additionally, the absorption of the material is considered. Therefore, R_2 is described with:

$$R_2 = R_1(1 - R_1)^2 \cdot e^{-2\beta d} \quad (5)$$

with the absorption coefficient β and the total power reflectivity R_1 of the first interface. The assumption that the reflection of the first interface is the same as the reflection of the second interface is in reality not correct. Disturbances like roughness of the interfaces or the absorption of the material lead to a different reflection coefficients of the two interfaces.

Considering this and the phase of the light, the total power reflectivity R is described with:

$$R = \left| \frac{(e^{i\frac{2\omega}{c}N_2d} - 1)(1 - N_2)}{e^{i\frac{2\omega}{c}N_2d}(1 - N_2) - (1 + N_2)} \right|^2. \quad (6)$$

ω is the angular frequency of the light and c the speed of light. The phase shift of the light is described with $e^{i\frac{2\omega}{c}N_2d}$. In contrast to 5, equation 6 shows a periodic modulation of the reflectivity because of interference. The difference between the maxima of the modulation can be calculated with:

$$\Delta\nu = \nu_{m+1} - \nu_m = \frac{1}{2dN_2} \quad (7)$$

2.3 Optical properties

The refractive index N :

$$N(\omega) = n(\omega) + i\kappa(\omega) \quad (8)$$

consists of a real part n and an imaginary part κ and is related to the dielectric function ϵ :

$$\epsilon = N^2 = n^2 - \kappa^2 + 2in\kappa \quad (9)$$

2.4 Drude model

The drude model is a classical model in which the electrons in a solid are treated as a gas of free particles. In this model the dielectric function ϵ can be described as:

$$\epsilon = 1 - \frac{\omega_p^2\tau^2}{1 + \omega^2\tau^2} + i\frac{\omega_p^2\tau}{\omega(1 + \omega^2\tau^2)} \quad (10)$$

with ω_p as the plasma frequency:

$$\omega_p = \sqrt{\frac{N_e e^2}{\epsilon_0 m^*}} \quad (11)$$

and τ as the relaxation time of the electrons. m^* is the effective mass of the electrons and N_e the charge carrier density. At the plasma frequency ω_p the real part of the refractive index becomes nearly zero $n(\omega_p) \approx 0$ and therefore the phase velocity and wavelength diverge. This means that all electrons are oscillating in phase. Absorption of light is not possible for frequencies below the plasma frequency.

2.5 Semiconductors

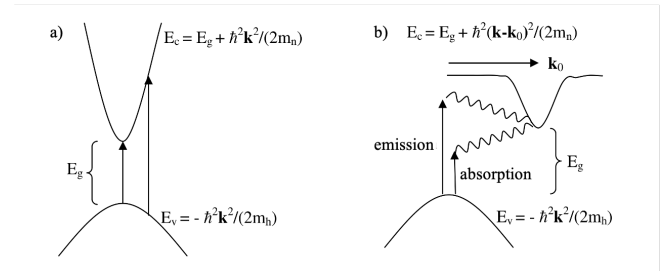


Abbildung 2: a) direct and b) indirect semiconductor bandgap. If a photon is absorbed by a valence electron the excitation to the conduction band is for the indirect bandgap only possible with an additional phonon absorption or emission process.[2]

While metals are described properly with the drude model, for semiconductors the bandgap has to be considered additionally. Like shown in 2 the bandgap of a semiconductor can be direct or indirect. To

ensure energy and momentum conservation, the excitation of a valence electron to the conduction band for a indirect bandgap is only possible with an additional phonon absorption or emission process. For semiconductors, ϵ_{sem} can be calculated as:

$$\epsilon_{\text{sem}} = \epsilon_{\text{LP}} + i \frac{\sigma}{\omega \epsilon_0} \quad (12)$$

with σ as the conductivity of the semiconductor:

$$\sigma = \frac{N_e e^2 \tau}{m^*} \frac{1}{1 - i\omega\tau}. \quad (13)$$

The lattice contribution ϵ_{LP} is described as:

$$\epsilon_{\text{LP}} = \epsilon_{\infty} \left(1 + \frac{\omega_{\text{LO}}^2 - \omega_{\text{TO}}^2}{\omega_{\text{TO}}^2 - \omega^2 - i\Gamma\omega} \right) \quad (14)$$

with ϵ_{∞} as the high frequency dielectric constant, ω_{LO} as the longitudinal optical phonon frequency, ω_{TO} as the transversal optical phonon frequency and Γ as the damping constant.

3 Set-Up

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4 Bibliography

Literatur

- [1] Meschede D., *Gerthsen Physik*, Springer Verlag, 25th Edition, 2018. Modified by Lukas Hein and Elias Schwarzkopf.
- [2] Material for F-Praktikum.